Load-Blind Latency Models Pick the Wrong Edge Node: A Measurement Study of Game Server Placement

Ankam Charan Teja, Aranya Roy, Akshit Singh, Nikhil, Yash

Abstract—Edge placement algorithms choose a node with an analytical latency model, propagation delay plus data size over bandwidth, that has no term for server load. Edge nodes are small, so a crowded edge can add more delay inside the server than its proximity saves, and because placement work is usually evaluated in simulators built on the same model, the error does not show. We measure it. On an emulated four-node edge–cloud testbed (0.5, 1, 2 and 4 cores at 5, 15, 30 and 40 ms round-trip time) running a real multiplayer game server and up to 160 protocol-level bot players, we record network, transport, server-process and in-game latency concurrently. The ICMP round trip never moves more than 0.3 ms from its configured value, while the 95th-percentile in-game latency of the smallest node rises from 15 ms at 40 players to 6.7–8.6 s at 60. We fit a closed-form M/M/1 model and a gradient-boosted tree model to two replicates of the load grid, compute each model's optimal placement for 40 to 160 players, and deploy every placement for real. The load-blind placement leaves its worst players at 18–30 s from 80 players on; both load-aware placements stay at 20–39 ms. The learned model predicts latency best (median error 0.9 ms against 1.8 ms and 5.8 ms, and 1.2 ms on a held-out third replicate) but, on these scenarios, does not place better than the fitted closed form. Run as a live controller on the same schedule of players, the load-blind model never moves a match and its worst players sit at a median of 1.06 s; the learned model keeps them at a median of 33 ms. When one node silently loses half its CPU, only a variant that corrects itself from live measurements moves players off it.

I. Introduction

Putting a game server at the network edge shortens the path to its players. Edge nodes, however, are small: a base-station or street-cabinet server has a fraction of a data-centre machine's compute and cannot scale out. When enough players are placed on one, its CPU saturates and the delay added inside the server grows without bound, while the network delay it saves is fixed.

Placement algorithms rank candidate nodes with an analytical model of latency,

$$\text{latency} = \text{propagation delay} + \frac{\text{data size}}{\text{bandwidth}}, \qquad (1)$$

which has a term for distance and a term for bandwidth and none for load. The error this causes is hard to see in the literature because placement policies are mostly evaluated numerically or in discrete-event simulators such as iFogSim [1], YAFS [2], EdgeCloudSim [3] and PureEdgeSim [4]. A recent taxonomy of microservice placement in fog computing states the gap directly: the majority of works evaluate by numerical analysis or simulation and fail to validate on real testbeds, so resource contention among services is not accurately captured [5].

This paper measures that error instead of modelling it. Our contributions:

- an emulated edge–cloud testbed running a real game server binary and protocol-level clients, with latency measured at four depths at once, so delay is attributed to a layer rather than inferred;
- a labelled dataset mapping (node, load) to measured tail latency, three replicates (one held out for testing), released with the code;
- an end-to-end comparison in which each latency model's optimal placement is deployed and measured, so models are graded by a clock rather than by each other;
- a live placement controller on the same testbed, run under the load-blind and the learned model on the same schedule of players, including a node that loses half its CPU mid-run without any model being told.

II. Related Work

Service placement in fog and edge. Surveys of the service placement problem [6] and of microservice placement [5] catalogue objectives, constraints and algorithms. Latency is commonly modelled as in (1), with server-side processing either omitted or taken as a constant per request.

Simulators. iFogSim [1] and EdgeCloudSim [3] build on CloudSim; YAFS [2] on a discrete-event library and network graphs; PureEdgeSim [4] targets large heterogeneous deployments. All compute latency from configured link and processing parameters. They are indispensable for scale, but an algorithm evaluated in them is graded by the same assumptions it was designed with.

Closing the simulator gap. SimTune [7] uses a low-fidelity surrogate model to tune a high-fidelity simulator's parameters against a real edge–cloud platform, improving energy and response time of resource management. We take the opposite route: we keep no simulator, learn the load–latency relationship directly from measurements of an interactive workload, and evaluate on worst-player tail latency rather than mean response time.

Queueing-aware placement. Closed-form queueing terms such as $s/(1-u)$ for utilization u are the standard way to add load to a latency model. We include a fitted M/M/1

TABLE I
Candidate nodes

node	CPU quota	measured RTT
edge1	0.5 core	5.1 ms
edge2	1 core	15.1 ms
edge3	2 cores	30.1 ms
cloud	4 cores	40.1 ms

model as the strongest closed-form baseline rather than compare only against (1).

III. Testbed and Method

A. Topology

Five containers on one host are wired by containerlab: a client node and four candidate servers. Distance is emulated with Linux netem, half the target delay on each end of each link; compute is capped with a cgroup CPU quota on disjoint CPU sets. Table I lists the nodes; the RTT is measured with ping, not assumed. Every server runs the same Paper 1.21.4 Minecraft server and the same pre-generated world. The trade-off is deliberate: the nearest node is the weakest.

B. Load

Players are mineflayer bots that speak the real game protocol: each walks, turns, and sends one timestamped chat message per second. The chat echo gives an in-game round-trip time through the server's main game thread. Bots run at most ten per process; with one process for all bots, the broadcast fan-out (N^2 messages per second) saturated the client and its event-loop delay was recorded as server latency.

C. Measurement ladder

Four latencies are measured concurrently on the same path, under the same load: ICMP echo (network only, what (1) predicts); TCP handshake (adds the host's accept path); server-list status ping (adds the server process); and in-game RTT (adds the game thread). Tick time (MSPT), CPU and player count are sampled every 5 s from the server.

D. Protocol

Each grid cell is one node at one load: 20 s settle, 15 s idle baseline, staggered joins, 90 s steady window; only the steady window is analysed. edge1 is measured at 1, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50 and 60 players, the others at 1, 20, 40, 60, 80 and 100. The grid is run three times: twice to fit on (the second in reverse node order) and a third time, hours later on a restarted testbed, held out for testing. Before collection the worlds are warmed, server heaps are prevented from swapping, and the game's day/night cycle, weather and hostile mobs are frozen: with the cycle running, a single player at night put edge1 14 s behind, so a cell's time of day was an uncontrolled load source.

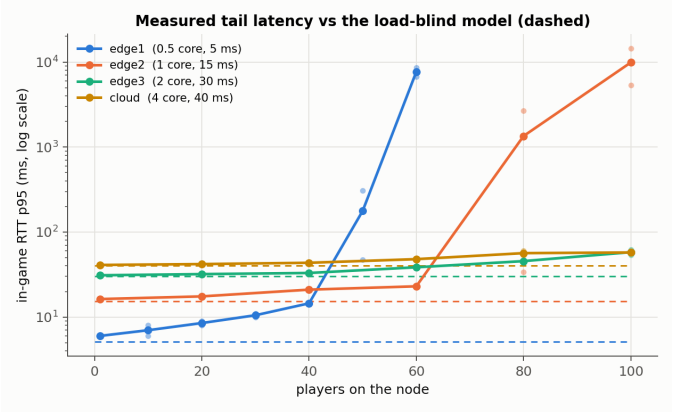


Fig. 1. Measured p95 in-game RTT per node (solid; dots are the two replicates) against the load-blind model's prediction (dashed).

E. Latency models

All three models predict p95 in-game latency for a node and a player count. Analytical: (1) with a 100 B message over 1 Gb/s. Queueing: RTT $+ s/(1-u)$, $u =$ players / (100 $\times$ cores), with s the median of delay $\times(1-u)$ over stable cells (2.8 ms). Learned: RTT plus a server delay predicted by gradient-boosted trees on utilization, players and cores.

IV. Results

A. The network is flat; the game thread is not

Fig. 1 shows measured p95 per node against player count, with the analytical prediction drawn flat. Across all 50 grid cells ICMP p95 stays within 0.3 ms of the configured RTT. edge1 stays within 10 ms of its 5 ms RTT up to 40 players and reaches 6.7–8.6 s at 60, where its tick time jumps from 6.5 to 46 ms. edge2 is flat to 60 players (23 ms) and breaks between 80 and 100. edge3 and cloud never reach a knee within 100 players. The tail leaves its flat region at edge1, 50 players, while mean tick time is still 6.5 ms, an eighth of the 50 ms budget.

B. Rank inversion

For a single match, the analytical model always picks edge1. That is correct up to 40 players (edge1 14.5 ms, edge2 21 ms) and wrong at 60, where edge1 measures 7.7 s and edge2 23 ms: a regret of 7.66 s on the worst player. Both load-aware models switch to edge2 at 60 and have zero regret at every measured load.

C. Prediction error

Table II fits each model on one replicate and predicts the other. The learned model has the lowest median and mean error; the queueing model is accurate in the flat region but its $1/(1-u)$ term explodes near the knee, giving a large mean error. Fitted on three nodes and tested on the fourth, the learned model transfers best to edge1, edge3 and cloud, and the queueing model to edge2. On a third replicate measured hours later and never used in any fit

TABLE II
Cross-replicate prediction error, 50 cells

model	median abs. err.	factor off	MAE
analytical	5.8 ms	2.82×	768 ms
queueing	1.8 ms	1.85×	6547 ms
learned	0.9 ms	1.28×	469 ms

TABLE III
Worst node's measured p95 (ms) for each model's placement (edge1/edge2/edge3/cloud players)

players	analytical	queueing	learned
40	26 (40/0/0/0)	26 (40/0/0/0)	26 (40/0/0/0)
80	29 897 (80/0/0/0)	20 (40/40/0/0)	20 (40/40/0/0)
120	17 758 (100/20/0/0)	31 (40/80/0/0)	32 (40/70/10/0)
160	19 990 (100/60/0/0)	35 (40/80/40/0)	39 (40/70/50/0)

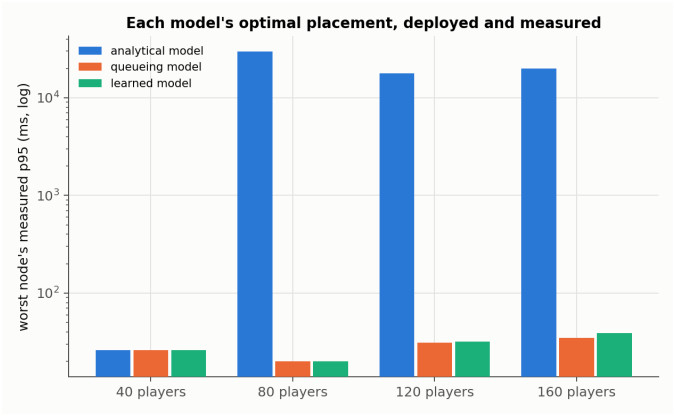


Fig. 2. Each model's optimal placement, deployed and measured (log scale).

(25 cells), the ranking holds: median error 1.2 ms learned, 2.3 ms queueing, 6.9 ms analytical. Asked whether a cell breaks a 50 ms budget, the learned model scores F1 0.92 (all six violations caught), the queueing model 0.67 and the analytical model 0, since it never predicts a violation.

V. Placement Evaluation

Problem. A batch of 40, 80, 120 or 160 players in matches of ten is split across the four nodes to minimise the worst player's predicted p95. For each model the optimum is found by exhaustive search.

Deployment. Every resulting placement is deployed on the testbed with all loaded nodes running at once, and measured with the same streams as the grid. No model's prediction is used to grade any model.

Result. Table III and Fig. 2. The analytical model predicts 5–15 ms for every scenario and fills the nearest node to its 100-player cap before using the next; from 80 players its worst players wait 18–30 s, about 510 to 1500 times longer than under either load-aware placement. Both load-aware models keep edge1 at 40 players and spread the rest; their placements measure within 4 ms of each other, and the learned model's predictions of its own deployments are within 1–12 ms. On these scenarios the learned model's advantage is in prediction, not in the placement decision: a correctly fitted closed form reaches almost the same placement.

VI. Closed-Loop Placement on the Testbed

The deployments above are static: one placement, measured once. We also ran placement as a controller on the live testbed. Every 2 s it reads every bot's latency samples, and every 5 s every server's player count, tick time and CPU; every 10 s it may move one match (ten players) if the move lowers the predicted worst-player p95 by at least 10 ms and 20%, or leaves it unchanged and lowers the mean by 3 ms, with a 60 s cooldown per match. A move stops the match on one server and starts it on another, so its players reconnect. New matches land on the nearest node with room, as a distance-based matchmaker would place them, so two runs differ only in the model that drives the controller.

TABLE IV
Live controller, same 13-minute schedule (worst node's p95)

controller	median	max	over 100 ms	moves
analytical	1 058 ms	19.6 s	53%	0
learned	33 ms	817 ms	18%	10

Same schedule, two controllers. A match of ten players arrives every 25 s up to 140 players, holds for 150 s, and leaves until 60 remain (13 min). Table IV and Fig. 3. The analytical controller never moves a match: edge1 fills to 100 players and its p95 stays above 10 s until departures empty it. The learned controller keeps the worst player's p95 at a median of 33 ms; its remaining excursions over 100 ms are the 10–25 s after each new match lands on edge1 and before it is moved away. Scored on the analytical run's own 10 s windows, the models' predictions of whether a node breaks 100 ms reach F1 0.00 (analytical), 0.87 (queueing and learned) and 0.95 for a variant of the learned model that corrects itself from live measurements.

A node gets slower and no model is told. With eight matches settled, edge1's CPU quota is cut from 0.5 to 0.25 cores at 220 s (Fig. 4). The offline learned model still predicts edge1's 0.5-core curve: it keeps 40 players there and edge1's p95 stays at 0.2–2.6 s for the remaining five minutes (99% of the time over 100 ms). A variant corrects the model while it runs: each steady 10 s window updates a per-node factor c such that the node at P players behaves like the grid's node at cP. Its first version noticed the cut and moved two matches off within 70 s, but light, healthy windows below the new knee pulled c back down and it moved a match back, which then saw 3.9 s. With a five-minute memory of loads measured over budget, a rerun was over 100 ms for 4% of the time after the cut (the 15–20 s before its first move) and never reloaded edge1. The memory was added after the first run and each version

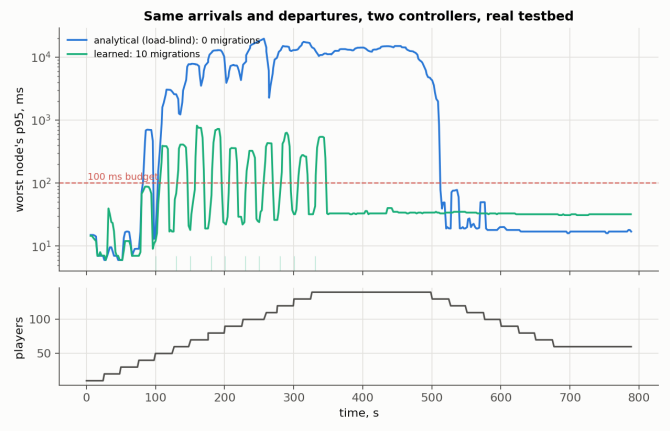


Fig. 3. Worst node's p95 over time under each controller, same arrivals and departures (bottom). Ticks mark the learned controller's migrations.

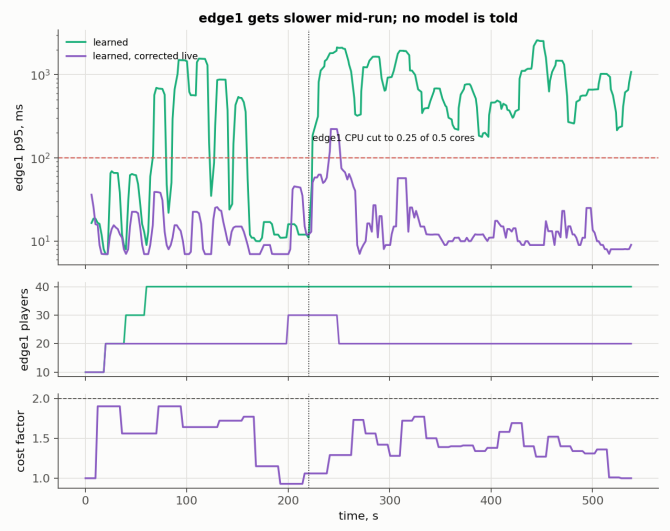


Fig. 4. edge1's CPU halved at 220 s (dotted). Top: edge1's p95 under the offline and the live-corrected learned model. Middle: players each leaves on edge1. Bottom: the live model's cost factor for edge1 (true value after the cut: 2).

ran once; it shows the mechanism, not a tuned result.

VII. Threats to Validity

One host, three replicates. All nodes share one laptop; three replicates give a spread, not a confidence interval. At the knees the replicates differ by 6–80×, so the exact player count of a knee is not established.

Host power mode. A node capped at half a core runs in short bursts, so the CPU governor keeps its clock low unless the host is in its performance power mode. All clean runs used that mode. In the balanced mode the same players cost 2–3× the CPU (edge1 with 20 players: 42% of a core instead of 14–18%) and edge1's knee fell below 20 players. One edge1 pass and one full replicate were spoiled this way; they are excluded and kept as evidence. The same node, players and network, changed only by a setting no latency formula sees, moved the knee threefold.

Chosen, not discovered, capacities. The core counts and delays were picked to create the trade-off. The claim is that an inversion exists, is large, and is avoided by a load-aware model, not that edge nodes fail at a particular player count. The 100-players-per-core capacity the queueing model uses is untested above one core.

Synthetic workload. Bots walk and chat on a fixed schedule, and hostile mobs are disabled; real players and real mob AI add load of other shapes. The placement comparison covers four scenarios on four nodes; larger problems are where the load-aware models could differ.

VIII. Conclusion

The load-blind latency model used to rank edge nodes is accurate only below a node's saturation point, and above it the error is not a few milliseconds but seconds: deployed, its placements left the worst players waiting 18–30 s where a load-aware placement measured 20–39 ms on the same hardware. A model learned from measurements predicts latency best, while on these scenarios a fitted M/M/1 term already makes the right placement. Run live on the same schedule, a load-blind controller never moves a match while a load-aware one keeps the worst players at a median of 33 ms, and a node that silently slows down is handled only by a model that keeps learning from measurements and remembers the loads it has seen fail. The practical lesson is that the latency term in placement must see load, and that its shape is better measured than assumed. Future work: more replicates on dedicated hardware, nodes pushed past their knees at higher core counts, larger placement problems, state handover instead of reconnection, and network impairments that make the bandwidth term non-trivial. Code, raw measurements and the dataset: https://github.com/ankamteja/latency-aware-edge-game-placement.

References

[1] H. Gupta, A. V. Dastjerdi, S. K. Ghosh, and R. Buyya, "iFogSim: A toolkit for modeling and simulation of resource management techniques in the Internet of Things, edge and fog computing environments," Software: Practice and Experience, vol. 47, no. 9, pp. 1275–1296, 2017, arXiv:1606.02007.

[2] I. Lera, C. Guerrero, and C. Juiz, "YAFS: A simulator for IoT scenarios in fog computing," IEEE Access, vol. 7, pp. 91 745–91 758, 2019.

[3] C. Sonmez, A. Ozgovde, and C. Ersoy, "EdgeCloudSim: An environment for performance evaluation of edge computing systems," Transactions on Emerging Telecommunications Technologies, vol. 29, no. 11, p. e3493, 2018.

[4] C. Mechalikh, H. Taktak, and F. Moussa, "PureEdgeSim: A simulation framework for performance evaluation of cloud, edge and mist computing environments," Computer Science and Information Systems, vol. 18, no. 1, pp. 43–66, 2021.

[5] S. Pallewatta, V. Kostakos, and R. Buyya, "Placement of microservices-based IoT applications in fog computing: A taxonomy and future directions," ACM Computing Surveys, vol. 55, no. 14, pp. 321:1–321:43, 2023, arXiv:2207.05399.

[6] F. Ait Salaht, F. Desprez, and A. Lebre, "An overview of service placement problem in fog and edge computing," Inria, Tech. Rep. RR-9295, 2019, hAL hal-02313711.

[7] S. Tuli, G. Casale, and N. R. Jennings, "SimTune: bridging the simulator reality gap for resource management in edge-cloud computing," Scientific Reports, vol. 12, 2022.